Estimating the effect of hate crimes on turnout and vote choice: a case study of Asian Americans in Los Angeles during the 2020 general election

Yun Choi

2024-05-18

Contents

1 Introduction **3**

2 Literature Review **3**

2.1 Effect of Crime on Turnout . . . 3

2.2 Effect of Hate Crimes on Turnout . . . 4

2.3 Effect of Hate Crimes on Vote Choice . . . 5

3 Data and Variables of Interest **7**

3.1 Data . . . 7

3.2 Variables of Interest . . . 8

3.3 Control Variables . . . 9

4 Research Design: Matching and Regression **10**

4.1 Analysis 1: First set of hypotheses . . . 10

4.2 Analysis 2: Second set of hypotheses . . . 11

4.3 Analysis 3: Third set of hypotheses . . . 11

5 Results **11**

5.1 Analysis 1 . . . 11

5.2 Analysis 2 . . . 13

5.3 Analysis 3 15

6 Sensitivity Analysis **18**

7 Next steps **18**

References **24**

1 Introduction

How hate crimes affect turnout and vote choice of the targeted group? Hate crimes leave emotional distress on the targeted group as well as victims and change their views of world. However, their effect on turnout and vote choice of the targeted group remains largely unknown probably due to the sporadic but impactful nature of hate crimes.

Hate crimes are rare but receive great media and public attention. Each incident directly impacts the victims and indirectly impacts the majority of the targeted group members. Such a lack of diversity and imbalance in treatment assignment - a very few victims being directly treated and the vast majority of the target group being indirectly treated by a single incident - makes it hard to estimate the effect of hate crimes due to a lack of control group, the targeted group members not exposed to hate crimes.

The 2020 general election provides a rare opportunity to measure the effect of hate crimes on turnout and vote choice for many reasons. First, a number of anti-Asian hate crimes occurred as the COVID-19 pandemic spread, exposing Asians to different levels of treatment. Second, the election took place while anti-Asian hate crimes were actively happening, minimizing possible time decay of the treatment effect. Third, a presidential election gives a favorable condition to measure a small effect compared to down-ballot elections because of its higher participation rate.

In this paper, I focus on Asians in Los Angeles, California, for practical reasons. Los Angeles is one of the cities with the biggest Asian populations that saw a large number of anti-Asian hate crimes in 2020. That provides a number of samples exposed to different levels of treatment. Moreover, the city government maintains a comprehensive and publicly available crime incidents database, which helps accurately measure the exposure to different levels of hate crime by individual.

2 Literature Review

2.1 Effect of Crime on Turnout

Extensive research has identified factors influencing turnout, but only a handful of studies have examined the effect of crime on turnout and produced mixed findings.

2.1.1 Victimization vs. Indirect exposure to crimes

Being a victim of crime and witnessing crime are two different experiences. First-hand experience of crime leaves severe emotional, physical, financial, and psychological damages, while secondary information of crime in proximity increases fear and insecurity (Morrison and Rockmore 2021). Due to this difference in their nature, **victimization** and **indirect exposure to crime** have turned out to have different effects on turnout.

Survey studies on **victimization** have found that personal experience of violence increases political participation although they explain it with different causal mechanisms. Tedeschi and Calhoun (1996) explains the pattern with post-traumatic growth theory, which posits that traumatic experience can lead to personal growth, which can extend to one's political realm. On the other hand, Bateson (2012) explains that victims turn to politics in order to express and mitigate negative emotions resulted from victimization without elaborating what kinds of emotions are being expressed how. Morrison and Rockmore (2021) expands this theory and pinpoints the emotion being fear. He explains that fear makes individuals to seek more political information to protect themselves from possible dangers. Berens and Dallendörfer (2019) finds such an effect from victims of non-violent crimes only. The probability of voting for victims of violent crimes remain the same.

Surprisingly, empirical studies on **indirect exposure to crime** have found the opposite pattern: Turnout is higher in high-violence areas than lower-violence areas (Trelles and Carreras 2012; Ley 2018). Such finding aligns with the literature on voting behavior, which has consistently found that education and income are negatively correlated with political participation (Verba and Nie 1987; Lijphart 1997; Milbrath n.d.). Since the less educated tend to live in high-crime urban areas, lower turnout in high-income areas make sense. However, such finding contradicts findings from victimization studies. If victimization increases political participation, turnout should be higher in high-crime areas with a high numbers of victims. One explanation for this gap could be that indirect exposure to crime has a negative effect on political participation of victims' neighbors that is greater enough to cancel out the participation gain from the victims. Sønderskov et al. (2022) dismiss findings of victimization studies that are primarily using survey data, pointing that they lack panel data and suffer from severe selection bias. Victims participating in survey studies are politically active individuals, and therefore, comparing non-victims with politically active individuals is inappropriate.

2.2 Effect of Hate Crimes on Turnout

The main concern of this study is how hate crime affects turnout and vote choice of the targeted group, not crime in general. Although hate crimes are one type of crimes, hate crimes are expected to have a different effect on turnout in many aspects. Unlike crime in general, hate crimes illicit strong emotions from non-victims in the targeted group.

2.2.1 Group conflict and political mobilization

The literature on group conflict and identity politics expect hate crimes raise group consciousness and mobilize the group (Jackson 1987). Based on the literature on racial conflict, I develop my first set of hypotheses as below:

Hypothesis 1: Asians indirectly exposed to more anti-Asian crimes are more likely to vote during the 2020 presidential election, compared to Asians indirectly exposed to lesser anti-Asian crimes. **Hypothesis 1-1:** The more severe crimes have bigger effects on turnout.

2.3 Effect of Hate Crimes on Vote Choice

Theories of ethnic conflict and mobilization expect that racially-charged hate crimes mobilize the targeted group members. However, few studies examined how the targeted group members vote perhaps because in many cases, it is clear which party the target group will vote for.

2.3.1 Interest- vs. identity-based voting

The literature on political psychology predicts that increased group consciousness would shift group members towards identity-based voting as opposed to interest-based voting. Identity-based voting is different from interest-based voting in that it prioritizes **group** interests over **individual** interests. Within the same ethnic group, individuals are distributed on a wide range of income and education spectrum, and therefore, interest-based voting may diverge votes from the same ethnic group. On the other hand, identity-based voting predicts the convergence of the votes from the same ethnic group.

In many cases, it is clear which party the oppressed group will vote for. In the history of American politics, Black Americans have strongly and consistently supported the Democratic Party since the presidency of Franklin D. Roosevelt. Likewise, Jewish Americans have strongly and consistently supported the Democratic Party since the late 1920s. However, it is unclear how Asian Americans voted during the 2020 presidential election amid the Republican Party's racist remarks and the Democratic Party's commitment to police reform.

Many high-profile Republicans made racist remarks. Then-President Donald Trump called the coronavirus the "China virus" and "Kung flu", and Senator John Cornyn from Texas claimed "China was to blame because of the culture where people ate bats, and snakes, and dogs." Although the effect of such remarks on anti-Asian sentiment remains unknown, the number of anti-Asian hate crimes spiked by 79% in 2020, compared to the year before. That figure was the highest since 1996.

During the time when Asians needed the most protection from the police, the Democratic Party and Black American activists were pushing for police reform after the death of George Floyd, a 46-year-old Black American male killed by a white police officer on May 25, 2020. Although the extent of police reform were still being discussed among Democrats and activists, it was certain that it would be in the direction of limiting police power.

Although the majority of Asian Americans have supported the Democratic Party, their tie to the Democratic Party is much weaker than other minority groups. More than 80 percent of Black Americans and nearly 70 percent of Jewish Americans have identified with the Democratic Party since early 1990's, while nearly 60 percent of Asian Americans have identified with the party since the late 1990's (Center 2018).

Considering Asian Americans' weak ties to the major two political parties in the U.S. and their then-current relationships with the Republican Party and the Democratic Party, it is hard to believe that Asian Americans' votes converged to a single party. In the absence of clear guidance on which party to vote collectively, I theorize that Asian Americans voted based on their own perceptions of group interest. Voting for either party can be perceived as identity-based voting because each party offers distinct benefits for Asian Americans. Voting for the Republican Party guarantees strong law enforcement power that could protect Asians from crimes targeting them, while voting for the Democratic Party could end the federal governance of the party with leaders who spread anti-Asian bias.

2.3.2 Symbolic racism vs. material threat

I theorize that Asian individuals' perceptions of group interest vary by their own experience. I theorize that Asians indirectly exposed to greater anti-Asian hate crimes committed by Blacks perceive strong law enforcement power as the best group interest, while Asians indirectly exposed to greater anti-Asian hate crimes committed by whites perceive stopping symbolic racism as the best group interest. Based on this reasoning, I develop the following hypotheses:

Hypothesis 2: Asians indirectly exposed to more anti-Asian crimes committed by Black Americans in 2020 were more likely to vote for the Republican Party, compared to Asians who were not in proximity to any anti-Asian crimes.

Hypothesis 2-1: The more severe crimes have bigger effects.

Hypothesis 3: Asians in proximity to anti-Asian crimes committed by White Americans were more likely to vote for the Democratic Party to the Republican Party, compared to Asians who were not in proximity to any anti-Asian crimes.

Hypothesis 3-1: The more severe crimes have bigger effects.

This paper attempts to shed light on some of understudied areas in the field of American political behavior. To my knowledge, this is one of the first few attempts to measure the effect of hate crimes on turnout and vote choice in the U.S. context. Moreover, it provides a better understanding of Asian American voters, who have received little attention of race relations scholars. This paper describes how Asian Americans voted facing anti-Asian sentiment during the 2020 presidential election.

3 Data and Variables of Interest

3.1 Data

I use three main data sources: the California state voter file, crime incidents data from the Los Angeles Police Department (LAPD), and the 2020 decennial demographic and socioeconomic data. California is selected as the state had the largest Asian population and saw the largest number of anti-Asian hate crimes in 2020. I focus on Los Angeles because it is the police jurisdiction that saw most anti-Asian hate crimes in the state and provides detailed information on incident location and victim race and ethnicity.

The voter file from the L2 Data provided by the Initiative for Data-Driven Social Science (DDSS) at Princeton contains voting records for the 2016 and 2020 general elections and detailed race and ethnicity information on each voter, modeled by the data company. I intend to include several more prior general elections and model and impute this information by myself in the future.

LAPD **crime incidents** data contains the exact geocodes of individual incidents and race and ethnicity information on victims, but not on suspects. Since the information on race and ethnicity of suspects is critical in testing my second hypothesis, I use suspects data obtained through a public records request.

Thanks to the decennial census happened in 2020, many demographic and socioeconomic data, typically available at the block-group or tract level became available at the block level for 2020. Using the most granular spatial unit of analysis is recommended because that minimizes ecological fallacy. This data is used to impute important predictor variables - income, education, and neighborhood racial composition - unavailable in the voter file.

3.2 Variables of Interest

3.2.1 Outcome 1: Turnout

The outcome variable in the first analysis is *PositiveTurnoutChange*, which measures the change between the 2016 and 2020 general elections' voting rates. A positive value indicates the precinct saw an increase in voting rate between the two general elections, while a negative value indicates the opposite.

3.2.2 Outcome 2: Vote Choice

The outcome variable in the second analysis is *RepublicanShift*, which measures the change in the difference between Democratic and Republican vote shares. A precinct is assigned a positive value if the gap between Democratic and Republican vote shares increased in a favorable direction to the Republican Party. That means a precinct can get a positive value even though the Democratic Party won by a large margin if the share of Republican votes increased to any extent. Likewise, a strong Republican precinct can get a negative value if the share of Democratic votes increased by any amount.

3.2.3 Independent: Hate crimes and excess crimes

The main independent variable for both analyses is the number of hate crime incidents. Law enforcement agencies clearly indicate hate crime incidents, but taking their numbers at face value greatly undercounts incidents motivated by racial bias. In many cases, it is hard to identify if an incident was bias-motivated. In fact, whether to classify an incident as hate crimes is a subject of legal battle because offenders receive more severe penalties if classified as hate crime offenders. For this reason, I differentiate two crime measures: *official anti-Asian hate crimes* and *excess anti-Asian crimes*. *Official anti-Asian hate crimes* counts crimes classified as anti-Asian only, while *excess anti-Asian crimes* measures excess crimes compared to other racial groups. *Official anti-Asian hate crimes* is a lower bound of actual hate crimes, and *excess anti-Asian crimes* is an upper bound of actual hate crimes.

I measure excess anti-Asian crimes using the difference-in-differences (DID) method. Using DID, I compare the change in the numbers of Asians and non-Asian victims between 2019 and 2020. The key assumption of this approach is that in the absence of anti-Asian bias, the difference between the number of Asian victims and non-Asian victims is constant over time. In this analysis, I use excess Asian victims as a proxy for anti-Asian hate crimes because LAPD has not accurately documented anti-Asian hate crimes. The annual FBI hate crime statistics show that there were dozens of anti-Asian hate crimes in 2020, but LAPD crime database classified only two incidents as anti-Asian hate crimes. Due to the lack of data availability, I use only one anti-Asian crime measures in this paper, but I intend to expand crime measures in the future as explained in the Next Steps section. I also consider the severity of crimes as violent crimes are expected to produce greater reactions than non-violent hate crimes.

3.2.4 Mediating: Suspect race

Suspect race is the key mediating variable in the second analysis. I group suspects into four groups - non-Hispanic whites, non-Hispanic Blacks, Hispanics, and Other - but only consider non-Hispanic whites and Blacks because the other groups have weaker ties to the major two parties. Unlike non-Hispanic whites and Blacks who are strongly affiliated with the Republican and Democratic parties respectively, Hispanics and mixed racials do not possess a strong tie to either of the two major parties.

3.3 Control Variables

3.3.1 Socioeconomic status

Control variables on socioeconomic status include *poverty*, *income*, *education*, and *marital status*. Poverty, income, and education have been identified as having strong association with crime, and political participation. Areas with less educated, low-income individuals have higher crime rates and lower political participation. Married individuals have higher political participation (Wolfinger and Wolfinger 2008).

3.3.2 Neighborhood racial composition

I also control for neighborhood racial composition that may influence individuals' racial attitudes: *Racial composition*, and *racial segregation*. The literature on race relations has found that intergroup contact influence racial attitudes, although the direction of influence remains debated. The contact theory suggests that intergroup contact reduces prejudice. On the other hand, racial threat theory suggests that intergroup contact works the opposite way and increases the majority group's hostility towards the minority. Conditions under which each theory holds true are actively being researched.

3.3.3 Neighborhood immigrant composition

I additionally control for *shares of immigrants by race* because immigrants of a certain race may have a different impact than co-ethnics born and raised in the U.S. on racial attitudes of the other racial groups. The literature on intergroup contact theory has found that many native-born Americans unfavorably perceive immigrants, although their hostility vary by immigrant attributes such as nationality, education level, occupational prestige, and English proficiency (Hainmueller and Hopkins 2015). Scholars have explained such hostility mainly through two mechanisms: (1) economic self-interest and (2) prejudice and ethnocentrism.

4 Research Design: Matching and Regression

I use matching and regression to estimate the causal effect of anti-Asian hate crimes on turnout and vote choice of Asian Americans in Los Angeles. Using the two complementary methods have many benefits. Matching improves covariate balance between treatment and control groups and helps control for possible confounding variables, while regression allows interpretable results and sensitivity analysis across different model specifications.

The unit of analysis is precincts. The first hypothesis can be tested at the individual level, but this paper test it at the precinct level due to time constraints. I intend to test the first hypothesis at the individual level in the future.

I match precincts on pre-treatment covariates - socioeconomic and neighborhood racial and immigrant composition - and use precincts where Asians account for more that 50 percent of residents only because the main concern of this paper is the effect of anti-Asian hate crimes on Asians, not other racial groups. The remaining precincts account for six percent of the entire precincts in Los Angeles. Including precincts where Asians account for less than 50 percent of residents increases the sample size but captures the effect on other racial groups and bias the estimate. For sensitivity analysis, I provide how the effect size changes as the threshold changes. I expect the effect decreases as precincts with lower shares of Asians get included.

4.1 Analysis 1: First set of hypotheses

I test Hypothesis 1 by building several regression models with different specifications on matched precincts with more than 50 percent of Asian residents. In the first model, I regress the dependent variable on the independent variable only. In the second model, I additionally control for socioeconomic status. In the third and fourth model, I add controls for neighborhood racial composition and immigrant composition, respectively.

I test Hypothesis 1-1 by building the same four models with the same pool of precincts, but with a different crime measure. The models testing Hypothesis 1 use ExcessAsianVictims as the crime measure, which is the count of excess crimes compared to other racial groups. The models testing Hypothesis 1-1 use ExcessAsianVictims (Vio.) as the crime measure, which is the count of excess violent crimes compared to other racial groups. (For more details on the construction of this measure, look at the Data section.)

4.2 Analysis 2: Second set of hypotheses

Similar to Analysis 1, I test Hypothesis 2 by building several regression models with different specifications on matched precincts with more than 50 percent of Asian residents. In the first model, I regress the dependent variable on the independent variable only. In the second model, I additionally control for socioeconomic status. In the third and fourth model, I add controls for neighborhood racial composition and immigrant composition, respectively.

In Analysis 2, different dependent and independent variables are used. The dependent variable in Analysis 2 is RepublicanShift, which measures the change in the gap between the shares of Republican and Democratic votes between the 2016 and 2020 general elections. The independent variables are *ExcessAsianCrimes*, which is the independent variable in Analysis 1, *BlackArrestChange*, which measures the increase in Black arrestees in 2020, and their interaction.

I also test for Hypothesis 2-1 by building the same four models based on the same pool of precincts, but with different crime measures. The models testing Hypothesis 2-1 look at violent crimes and felony arrests only.

4.3 Analysis 3: Third set of hypotheses

The structures of Analysis 3 and Analysis 3-1 are the same as Analysis 2 and Analysis 2-1, but Analysis 3 concerns *WhiteArrestChange* instead.

5 Results

5.1 Analysis 1

Table 1 shows results for four models testing Hypothesis 1. The results show that excess Asian victims have a very large but statistically insignificant effect on Asian American turnout increase in the most developed two models. In the last two models, the coefficient on ExcessAsianVictims is above .6 but statistically insignificant.

Among all variables, only one variable - the share of married individuals - is shown to have a sizable, statistically significant effect on turnout increase across different model specifications. A one-percentage-point increase in the share of married individuals within the precinct increases turnout by .09 percentage point in a typical majority Asian precinct. Such result aligns with previous research findings that married individuals vote at a higher rate than who have never married.

Table 1
Hypothesis 1 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	TurnoutChange			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims	0.019 (0.826)	−0.617 (0.690)	0.616 (0.630)	0.856 (0.636)
PctAsian	−0.023 (0.042)	−0.055 (0.037)	-0.069^{*} (0.038)	−0.063 (0.041)
MedHouInc		-0.00000^{***} (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)	-0.00000^{*} (0.00000)
PctMarried		0.086^{**} (0.040)	0.072^{**} (0.035)	0.086^{**} (0.036)
PctBachelor		−0.047 (0.050)	0.017 (0.045)	−0.004 (0.046)
PctGraduate		0.147^{***} (0.039)	0.035 (0.041)	0.059 (0.043)
PctBlack			0.017 (0.083)	0.010 (0.082)
PctWhite			0.002 (0.054)	0.006 (0.054)
TotalPop			-0.0001^{***} (0.00002)	-0.0001^{***} (0.00002)
PctForeignBorn				0.00004 (0.00003)
PctForeignBornAsian				−0.034 (0.024)
Constant	6.251^{**} (2.736)	1.550 (2.670)	8.476^{**} (3.244)	9.728^{***} (3.296)
Observations	107	107	107	107
R^2	0.003	0.350	0.537	0.555
Adjusted R^2	-0.016	0.311	0.494	0.504
Residual Std. Error	3.959 (df = 104)	3.260 (df = 100)	2.794 (df = 97)	2.767 (df = 95)
F Statistic	0.147 (df = 2; 104)	8.977^{***} (df = 6; 100)	12.487^{***} (df = 9; 97)	10.775^{***} (df = 11; 95)

Note: $^{*}p<0.1$; $^{**}p<0.05$; $^{***}p<0.01$

Table 2 shows results from four models testing Hypothesis 1-1. These models have the same specifications as models testing Hypothesis 1, but they confine the analysis to excess Asian violent crime victims only. The results show that excess Asian violent crime victims has a sizable and statistically significant effect on turnout increase in the third model, which best explains the outcome variable considering the R-squared score. According to this model, a one-person increase in excess Asian violent crime victims leads to 4 percentage point increase in turnout in a typical majority Asian precinct.

Findings from Table 1 and Table 2 combined imply that the severity of crimes matter. Excess Asian victims cannot explain turnout increases in majority Asian precincts, but excess 'violent' crime victims can. One explanation for the null effect of non-violent crime on turnout increase can be that most non-violent crimes go unnoticed, especially those not classified as hate crimes. Therefore, Asians may not have been aware of so many non-violent crimes that targeted Asians at a disproportionate rate. These findings in general confirm my first set of hypothesis that Asians indirectly exposed to more anti-Asian crimes are more likely to vote during the 2020 presidential election, compared to Asians indirectly exposed to lesser anti-Asian crimes, and that te more severe crimes have bigger effects on turnout.

5.2 Analysis 2

Table 3 shows results for four models testing Hypothesis 2. The results show that the two independent variables - excess Asian victims and Black arrestee increase - have large negative but statistically insignificant effects on Republican shift. Such result is the opposite of Hypothesis 2 that expects an increase in Asian-targeted crimes leads to an increase in Republican vote share.

Although the two main independent variables do not have statistically significant effects, the results show three variables - the share of individuals with graduate degrees and shares of Blacks and Whites in the neighborhood - have consistent, sizable, and statistically significant effects on Republican shift. The fourth model, which best explains the outcome variable based on the R-squared score, shows that a percentage point increase in the share of residents with graduate degrees leads to a .28 percentage point decrease in Republican shift in an average majority Asian precinct. The model also shows that a percentage point increases in the shares of Black and White neighbors leads to a .5 percentage point increase and a .25 percentage point decrease in Republican shift. These results closely align with racial threat theory that suggests intergroup contact increases the majority's hostility towards the minority.

Table 4 based on violent crimes and felony arrests shows mixed findings on the effect of excess Asian victims. In the first two models, the coefficients of excess Asian victims are over 12, meaning one Asian victim

Table 2

Hypothesis 1-1 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	TurnoutChange			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims(Vio.)	−3.330 (2.820)	−1.821 (2.413)	4.557^{**} (2.293)	3.828 (2.361)
PctAsian	−0.028 (0.042)	−0.057 (0.037)	-0.074^{*} (0.038)	−0.067 (0.041)
MedHouInc		-0.00000^{***} (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)
PctMarried		0.081^{**} (0.041)	0.083^{**} (0.035)	0.092^{**} (0.036)
PctBachelor		−0.038 (0.050)	0.002 (0.044)	−0.012 (0.046)
PctGraduate		0.141^{***} (0.038)	0.036 (0.040)	0.055 (0.043)
PctBlack			0.004 (0.082)	0.005 (0.082)
PctWhite			−0.013 (0.054)	−0.007 (0.054)
TotalPop			-0.0001^{***} (0.00002)	-0.0001^{***} (0.00002)
PctForeignBorn				0.00002 (0.00003)
PctForeignBornAsian				−0.024 (0.024)
Constant	6.613^{**} (2.735)	1.792 (2.703)	9.034^{***} (3.203)	9.635^{***} (3.260)
Observations	107	107	107	107
R^2	0.016	0.349	0.550	0.559
Adjusted R^2	-0.003	0.310	0.509	0.508
Residual Std. Error	3.933 (df = 104)	3.263 (df = 100)	2.753 (df = 97)	2.755 (df = 95)
F Statistic	0.846 (df = 2; 104)	8.919^{***} (df = 6; 100)	13.198^{***} (df = 9; 97)	10.940^{***} (df = 11; 95)

Note: $^{*}p<0.1$; $^{**}p<0.05$; $^{***}p<0.01$

increase leads to more than a 12 percentage point increase in Republican Shift. However, the coefficient become smaller as controls for neighborhood racial and immigration compositions get added in the third and fourth models. Unlike excess Asian victims, the coefficients of Black felony arrests change remain statistically insignificant. But interestingly, in the second table that only looks at violent crimes and felony arrests, the coefficient turn positive as the model develops. In the fourth model, the coefficient is sizable and positive although statistically insignificant.

The coefficients on the share of individuals with graduate degrees and shares of Blacks and Whites in the neighborhood remain similar as the analysis based on all types of crimes. Another thing to note is that although very small, the share of foreign-born neighbors has consistent and statistically significant positive effect on Republican shift. This finding also aligns with racial threat theory in that it implies contact with immigrant increases the majority's hostility towards the immigrant group, leading to an increase in support for the Republican Party that has supported anti-immigration policies since early 2010's.

Above findings combined fail to confirm my second set of hypotheses that (1) Asians indirectly exposed to more anti-Asian crimes committed by Black Americans in 2020 were more likely to vote for the Republican Party, compared to Asians who were not in proximity to any anti-Asian crimes and that (2) the more severe crimes have bigger effects.

5.3 Analysis 3

Table 5 shows results for four models testing Hypothesis 3 that Asians in proximity to anti-Asian crimes committed by White Americans were more likely to vote for the Democratic Party to the Republican Party, compared to Asians who were not in proximity to any anti-Asian crimes. The results show that the two independent variables - excess Asian victims and White arrestee increase - have large positive but statistically insignificant effects on Republican shift. Such result is the opposite of Hypothesis 3 that expects an increase in Asian-targeted crimes committed by Whites leads to a decrease in Republican vote share.

Two out of the three control variables that show sizable statistically significant effects in Analysis 2 - the share of individuals with graduate degrees and the share of Black neighbors - continue to have sizable statistically significant effects in the same directions. The share of individuals with graduate degrees consistently and negatively affect Republican shift, while the share of Black neighbors positively affect Republican shift. The fourth model, which best explains the outcome variable based on the adjusted R-squared score, shows that a percentage point increase in the share of residents with graduate degrees leads to a .28 percentage point decrease in Republican shift in an average majority Asian precinct. The model also shows that a percentage

Table 3
Hypothesis 2 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	RepublicanShift			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims	−1.446 (3.254)	0.863 (2.500)	−0.570 (2.409)	−0.126 (2.427)
BlackArrestChange	-6.193^{**} (2.757)	−3.184 (2.221)	−2.234 (2.241)	−0.905 (2.297)
PctAsian	−0.102 (0.110)	−0.051 (0.088)	−0.099 (0.104)	−0.132 (0.113)
MedHouInc		0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)	-0.00000^{*} (0.0000
PctMarried		−0.094 (0.097)	−0.023 (0.094)	0.0003 (0.093)
PctBachelor		0.133 (0.123)	0.072 (0.120)	0.007 (0.120)
PctGraduate		-0.522^{***} (0.093)	-0.380^{***} (0.108)	-0.284^{**} (0.113)
PctBlack			0.493^{**} (0.220)	0.485^{**} (0.216)
PctWhite			-0.267^{*} (0.146)	-0.263^{*} (0.144)
TotalPop			0.0001 (0.0001)	0.00004 (0.0001)
PctForeignBorn				0.0002^{**} (0.0001
PctForeignBornAsian				−0.038 (0.065)
ExcessAsianVictims*BlackArrestChange	−2.845 (2.447)	−1.716 (1.879)	−1.562 (1.864)	−1.628 (1.885)
Constant	13.665^{*} (7.111)	29.500^{***} (6.378)	26.109^{***} (8.739)	28.071^{***} (8.687)
Observations	107	107	107	107
R^2	0.059	0.482	0.552	0.580
Adjusted R^2	0.022	0.440	0.500	0.521
Residual Std. Error	10.278 (df = 102)	7.775 (df = 98)	7.350 (df = 95)	7.194 (df = 93)
F Statistic	1.592 (df = 4; 102)	11.421^{***} (df = 8; 98)	10.630^{***} (df = 11; 95)	9.859^{***} (df = 13; 93)

Note: $^{*}p<0.1$; $^{**}p<0.05$; $^{***}p<0.$

Table 4

Hypothesis 2-1 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	RepublicanShift			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims(Vio.)	15.113** (7.326)	12.404** (5.725)	7.666 (6.120)	4.055 (6.266)
BlackArrestChange(Fel.)	−5.117 (3.889)	−1.213 (3.091)	−0.056 (2.968)	1.881 (3.059)
PctAsian	−0.070 (0.110)	−0.032 (0.087)	−0.086 (0.101)	−0.109 (0.108)
MedHouInc		0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)
PctMarried		−0.084 (0.096)	−0.021 (0.094)	−0.001 (0.093)
PctBachelor		0.109 (0.122)	0.070 (0.118)	0.008 (0.120)
PctGraduate		−0.513*** (0.092)	−0.387*** (0.105)	−0.288** (0.113)
PctBlack			0.493** (0.217)	0.505** (0.214)
PctWhite			−0.265* (0.143)	−0.254* (0.141)
TotalPop			0.0001 (0.0001)	0.0001 (0.0001)
PctForeignBorn				0.0002** (0.0001)
PctForeignBornAsian				−0.043 (0.064)
ExcessAsianVictims*BlackArrestChange				
Constant	11.622 (7.116)	27.975*** (6.403)	25.495*** (8.506)	26.937*** (8.534)
Observations	107	107	107	107
R^2	0.061	0.485	0.554	0.576
Adjusted R^2	0.034	0.449	0.507	0.522
Residual Std. Error	10.216 (df = 103)	7.715 (df = 99)	7.297 (df = 96)	7.182 (df = 94)
F Statistic	2.228* (df = 3; 103)	13.332*** (df = 7; 99)	11.901*** (df = 10; 96)	10.662*** (df = 12; 94)

Note: *p<0.1; **p<0.05; ***p<0.01

point increases in the shares of Black neighbors leads to a .54 percentage point increase in Republican shift.

Table 6 based on violent crimes and felony arrests shows similar results as Table 5 based on all types of crime and arrests. The shares of Black neighbors and neighbors with graduate degrees remain to have large statistically significant effects in different directions. But the share of white neighbors show a statistically significant negative effect on Republican shift. The instability in the effect of the share of white neighbors across analyses implies that the share of white neighbors is a weaker predictor of vote change than the share of Black neighbors or neighbors with graduate degrees.

6 Sensitivity Analysis

I run the above analyses with the entire precincts to examine if the relationships between variables change as precincts where Asians are the minority get included. I run analyses based on violent crimes and felony arrests only because they seem to have bigger effects on the outcome. I intend to take a closer look at these in the near future.

7 Next steps

This term paper has plenty room for improvement. Following is the list of tasks to be done in the near future. First, I will conduct the first analysis at the individual level. Due to time constraints, I could not prepare the individual-level data for the first analysis. The creation of individual-level data involves spatial analysis of counting the number of Asian victims by crime type and suspect race within a certain radius.

Second, as soon as I receive the suspect race and ethnicity information linked to crime incidents data from LAPD, which I have requested earlier in the semester, I will replace arrestee data with suspect data. With the arrestee data, not linked to crime incidents, I cannot identify if a precinct that saw an increase in both Asian victims and Black arrestees actually saw an increase in Asian-targeting crimes committed by Blacks. It could be the case that Asians victims resulted from crimes committed by other racial groups and Blacks are arrested for crimes targeting non-Asian groups in the area. Using suspects data linked to crime incidents data can overcome this ecological fallacy.

Third, I will build another more moderate measure for anti-Asian hate crimes. In this paper, I used excess Asian crimes, which measures excess Asian victims compared to non-Asian victims because official hate crime measure severely undercounts anti-Asian crimes, as discussed earlier in the Data section. However, excess Asian victims may have minimal effect on Asian turnout and vote choice because Asians go unnoticed

Table 5

Hypothesis 3 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	RepublicanShift			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims	1.889 (2.782)	3.078 (2.126)	1.608 (2.070)	2.330 (2.051)
WhiteArrestChange	−4.616** (2.261)	−1.157 (1.852)	0.508 (1.876)	1.317 (1.894)
PctAsian	−0.094 (0.111)	−0.047 (0.089)	−0.081 (0.103)	−0.104 (0.111)
MedHouInc		0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000* (0.000
PctMarried		−0.107 (0.098)	−0.039 (0.095)	−0.009 (0.093)
PctBachelor		0.145 (0.124)	0.080 (0.121)	0.005 (0.122)
PctGraduate		−0.529*** (0.094)	−0.378*** (0.109)	−0.282** (0.113)
PctBlack			0.535** (0.222)	0.538** (0.216)
PctWhite			−0.238 (0.143)	−0.222 (0.140)
TotalPop			0.0001** (0.0001)	0.0001 (0.0001)
PctForeignBorn				0.0002** (0.000
PctForeignBornAsian				−0.048 (0.066)
ExcessAsianVictims*WhiteArrestChange	1.144 (2.529)	0.976 (1.945)	1.533 (1.836)	1.581 (1.838)
Constant	13.122* (7.185)	29.708*** (6.497)	24.301*** (8.632)	26.458*** (8.578)
Observations	107	107	107	107
R^2	0.050	0.475	0.551	0.581
Adjusted R^2	0.012	0.432	0.499	0.523
Residual Std. Error	10.328 (df = 102)	7.832 (df = 98)	7.359 (df = 95)	7.179 (df = 93)
F Statistic	1.331 (df = 4; 102)	11.077*** (df = 8; 98)	10.580*** (df = 11; 95)	9.933*** (df = 13; 93)

Note: $^{*}p<0.1$; $^{**}p<0.05$; $^{***}p<0$

Table 6

Hypothesis 3-1 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	RepublicanShift			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims(Vio.)	13.728 (8.870)	9.412 (6.774)	2.639 (7.303)	0.301 (7.378)
WhiteArrestChange(Fel.)	−4.732 (3.664)	−0.841 (2.895)	0.056 (2.815)	0.461 (2.977)
PctAsian	−0.081 (0.111)	−0.042 (0.088)	−0.097 (0.101)	−0.110 (0.111)
MedHouInc		0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)	−0.00000 (0.00000)
PctMarried		−0.080 (0.097)	−0.013 (0.094)	0.008 (0.093)
PctBachelor		0.104 (0.122)	0.054 (0.119)	−0.010 (0.122)
PctGraduate		-0.515^{***} (0.092)	-0.380^{***} (0.106)	-0.290^{**} (0.113)
PctBlack			0.505^{**} (0.218)	0.523^{**} (0.215)
PctWhite			-0.265^{*} (0.144)	-0.244^{*} (0.143)
TotalPop			0.0001^{*} (0.0001)	0.0001 (0.0001)
PctForeignBorn				0.0001^{**} (0.0001)
PctForeignBornAsian				−0.039 (0.068)
ExcessAsianVictims*WhiteArrestChange	5.409 (4.399)	2.347 (3.477)	2.207 (3.307)	1.518 (3.444)
Constant	12.236^{*} (7.184)	28.623^{***} (6.446)	25.602^{***} (8.540)	26.416^{***} (8.523)
Observations	107	107	107	107
R^2	0.061	0.488	0.561	0.581
Adjusted R^2	0.024	0.446	0.510	0.522
Residual Std. Error	10.265 (df = 102)	7.732 (df = 98)	7.273 (df = 95)	7.185 (df = 93)
F Statistic	1.663 (df = 4; 102)	11.688^{***} (df = 8; 98)	11.041^{***} (df = 11; 95)	9.904^{***} (df = 13; 93)
Note:				$^{*}p<0.1$; $^{**}p<0.05$; $^{***}p<0.01$

Table 7

Sensitivity Analysis 1 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	Turnout Change			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims(Vio.)	2.158 (83.613)	4.062 (83.564)	9.096 (83.621)	11.650 (83.670)
PctAsian	−0.496 (0.438)	-0.818^{*} (0.478)	-1.046^{*} (0.582)	-1.797^{**} (0.848)
MedHouInc		-0.00001^{**} (0.00001)	−0.00001 (0.00001)	−0.00001 (0.00001)
PctMarried		0.744 (0.683)	0.741 (0.713)	0.668 (0.720)
PctBachelor		1.273 (1.311)	1.588 (1.330)	1.491 (1.342)
PctGraduate		−0.302 (0.886)	−0.257 (1.099)	−0.176 (1.119)
PctBlack			0.163 (0.665)	0.137 (0.674)
PctWhite			−0.606 (0.605)	−0.892 (0.665)
TotalPop			-0.001^{*} (0.0003)	-0.001^{*} (0.0004)
PctForeignBorn				0.0003 (0.001)
PctForeignBornAsian				0.607 (0.512)
Constant	21.693^{**} (9.713)	−8.423 (32.071)	22.868 (42.772)	24.594 (43.772)
Observations	1,719	1,719	1,719	1,719
R^2	0.001	0.005	0.007	0.008
Adjusted R^2	-0.0004	0.001	0.002	0.002
Residual Std. Error	301.271 (df = 1716)	301.055 (df = 1712)	300.898 (df = 1709)	300.936 (df = 1707)
F Statistic	0.641 (df = 2; 1716)	1.292 (df = 6; 1712)	1.393 (df = 9; 1709)	1.282 (df = 11; 1707)
Note:				$^{*}p<0.1$; $^{**}p<0.05$; $^{***}p<0.01$

Table 8

Sensitivity Analysis 2 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	RepublicanShift			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims(Vio.)	2.95 (3.13)	2.26 (2.58)	3.04 (2.48)	2.28 (2.44)
BlackArrestChange(Fel.)	−0.33 (0.24)	−0.11 (0.20)	0.05 (0.19)	0.04 (0.19)
PctAsian	−0.03* (0.02)	0.04*** (0.01)	−0.06*** (0.02)	−0.08*** (0.02)
MedHouInc		0.0000*** (0.0000)	0.0000 (0.0000)	−0.0000** (0.0000
PctMarried		−0.09*** (0.02)	−0.08*** (0.02)	−0.07*** (0.02)
PctBachelor		0.21*** (0.04)	0.16*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)
PctGraduate		−0.42*** (0.03)	−0.20*** (0.03)	−0.15*** (0.03)
PctBlack			−0.13*** (0.02)	−0.11*** (0.02)
PctWhite			−0.18*** (0.02)	−0.16*** (0.02)
TotalPop			0.0000*** (0.0000)	0.0000 (0.0000)
PctForeignBorn				0.0002*** (0.000
PctForeignBornAsian				0.01 (0.01)
ExcessAsianVictims*BlackArrestChange	−0.05 (1.55)	0.80 (1.28)	1.30 (1.23)	2.11* (1.21)
Constant	6.75*** (0.34)	15.61*** (0.92)	18.15*** (1.18)	16.40*** (1.18)
Observations	1,719	1,719	1,719	1,719
R^2	0.004	0.33	0.38	0.40
Adjusted R^2	0.002	0.32	0.37	0.40
Residual Std. Error	10.44 (df = 1714)	8.60 (df = 1710)	8.26 (df = 1707)	8.11 (df = 1705)
F Statistic	1.65 (df = 4; 1714)	102.94*** (df = 8; 1710)	94.49*** (df = 11; 1707)	88.35*** (df = 13; 1705)

Note: *p<0.1; **p<0.05; ***p<0.0

Table 9
Sensitivity Analysis 3 Results

	Dependent variable:			
	RepublicanShift			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
ExcessAsianVictims(Vio.)	2.89 (2.91)	2.58 (2.39)	3.67 (2.30)	3.62 (2.26)
WhiteArrestChange(Fel.)	−0.15 (0.42)	0.07 (0.35)	−0.02 (0.33)	0.05 (0.33)
PctAsian	-0.03^{**} (0.02)	0.04^{***} (0.01)	-0.06^{***} (0.02)	-0.08^{***} (0.02)
MedHouInc		0.0000^{***} (0.0000)	0.0000 (0.0000)	-0.0000^{**} (0.0000
PctMarried		-0.09^{***} (0.02)	-0.08^{***} (0.02)	-0.07^{***} (0.02)
PctBachelor		0.21^{***} (0.04)	0.16^{***} (0.04)	0.12^{***} (0.04)
PctGraduate		-0.42^{***} (0.03)	-0.20^{***} (0.03)	-0.16^{***} (0.03)
PctBlack			-0.13^{***} (0.02)	-0.11^{***} (0.02)
PctWhite			-0.17^{***} (0.02)	-0.16^{***} (0.02)
TotalPop			0.0000^{***} (0.0000)	0.0000 (0.0000)
PctForeignBorn				0.0002^{***} (0.000
PctForeignBornAsian				0.01 (0.01)
ExcessAsianVictims*WhiteArrestChange	2.31 (1.56)	2.53^{**} (1.28)	2.12^{*} (1.23)	1.54 (1.21)
Constant	6.80^{***} (0.34)	15.61^{***} (0.92)	18.13^{***} (1.17)	16.40^{***} (1.18)
Observations	1,719	1,719	1,719	1,719
R^2	0.004	0.33	0.38	0.40
Adjusted R^2	0.002	0.32	0.38	0.40
Residual Std. Error	10.44 (df = 1714)	8.60 (df = 1710)	8.26 (df = 1707)	8.11 (df = 1705)
F Statistic	1.75 (df = 4; 1714)	103.55^{***} (df = 8; 1710)	94.75^{***} (df = 11; 1707)	88.18^{***} (df = 13; 1705)

Note: $^{*}p<0.1$; $^{**}p<0.05$; $^{***}p<0.$

on most excess Asian victims as they are not classified as hate crimes and therefore receive much less media coverage than those classified as hate crimes. For this reason, I intend to create a new measure called *media-covered anti-Asian crimes* that falls in between official hate crime measure and excess Asian victims and that captures crimes that could have been perceived as anti-Asian hate crimes although not officially classified. This could be done by analyzing local crime news coverage.

Fourth, I will complement this observational study by conducting a similar analysis with survey data. Survey data offers many benefits that observational data does not, including the availability of many more variables at the individual level, which cannot be observed in administrative data. For this reason, survey data may reveal insights that observational data cannot.

References

Bateson, Regina. 2012. "Crime Victimization and Political Participation." *American Political Science Review* 106 (3): 570–87. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0003055412000299.

Berens, Sarah, and Mirko Dallendörfer. 2019. "Apathy or Anger? How Crime Experience Affects Individual Vote Intention in Latin America and the Caribbean." *Political Studies* 67 (4): 1010–33. https://doi.org/10.1177/0032321718819106.

Center, Pew Research. 2018. "1. Trends in Party Affiliation Among Demographic Groups." *Pew Research Center - U.S. Politics & Policy*.

Hainmueller, Jens, and Daniel J. Hopkins. 2015. "The Hidden American Immigration Consensus: A Conjoint Analysis of Attitudes Toward Immigrants." *American Journal of Political Science* 59 (3): 529–48. https://doi.org/10.1111/ajps.12138.

Jackson, Byran O. 1987. "The Effects of Racial Group Consciousness On Political Mobilization in American Cities." *Western Political Quarterly* 40 (4): 631–46. https://doi.org/10.1177/106591298704000405.

Ley, Sandra. 2018. "To Vote or Not to Vote: How Criminal Violence Shapes Electoral Participation." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 62 (9): 1963–90. https://doi.org/10.1177/0022002717708600.

Lijphart, Arend. 1997. "Unequal Participation: Democracy's Unresolved Dilemma Presidential Address, American Political Science Association, 1996." *American Political Science Review* 91 (1): 1–14. https://doi.org/10.2307/2952255.

Milbrath, Lester W. n.d. "Political Participation : How and Why Do People Get Involved in Politics?" *(No Title)*. Accessed December 13, 2023.

Morrison, Kevin M, and Marc Rockmore. 2021. "Crime and Political Participation in Africa: The Role of Insecurity." *Journal of African Economies* 30 (2): 160–82. https://doi.org/10.1093/jae/ejaa004.

Sønderskov, Kim Mannemar, Peter Thisted Dinesen, Steven E. Finkel, and Kasper M. Hansen. 2022. "Crime Victimization Increases Turnout: Evidence from Individual-Level Administrative Panel Data." *British Journal of Political Science* 52 (1): 399–407. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0007123420000162.

Tedeschi, Richard G., and Lawrence G. Calhoun. 1996. "The Posttraumatic Growth Inventory: Measuring the Positive Legacy of Trauma." *Journal of Traumatic Stress* 9 (3): 455–71. https://doi.org/10.1007/BF02103658.

Trelles, Alejandro, and Miguel Carreras. 2012. "Bullets and Votes: Violence and Electoral Participation in Mexico." *Journal of Politics in Latin America* 4 (2): 89–123. https://doi.org/10.1177/1866802X1200400204.

Verba, Sidney, and Norman H. Nie. 1987. *Participation in America: Political Democracy and Social Equality.* University of Chicago Press.

Wolfinger, Nicholas H., and Raymond E. Wolfinger. 2008. "Family Structure and Voter Turnout." *Social Forces* 86 (4): 1513–28. https://www.jstor.org/stable/20430819.